

AI in Fluids: Week 1

From conservation laws to a cavity solver

Numerical foundations for students new to CFD

Expanded edition: 27 pages, including pressure derivation

The learning question. How can a computer predict the recirculating flow in a box when only the wall motion, fluid properties, and geometry are given?

A neural network can fit a field without ensuring that it conserves mass or satisfies a wall condition. This week establishes the physical and numerical language needed to judge both CFD solutions and later machine-learning predictions. We start with conservation of mass and momentum, derive a pressure-free formulation for two-dimensional incompressible flow, and connect each equation to the existing cavity notebook.

Three companion notebooks

1. `01_python_for_cfd_ai_fluids.ipynb`: variables, functions, arrays, derivatives, and residuals.
2. `02_tensorflow_for_ai_fluids.ipynb`: tensors, shapes, losses, automatic differentiation, and a small neural network.
3. `03_cavity_ghia.ipynb`: a finite-difference streamfunction–vorticity solver and centerline comparison at $Re = 100$.

All three are in `notebooks/week01/`. This lecture explains the introductory $Re = 100$ solver; retained pressure-validation demonstrations elsewhere in the notebook have their own conditions and evidence.

Reading route

Pages	Topic
2–3	Fluid fields; continuity and both momentum components
4	Deriving the nondimensional equations and $1/Re$
5–7	Streamfunction, vorticity, proof of original Eq. (15), optional transport derivation
8–9	Finite differences and wall boundary conditions
10–11	Coupled iteration, convergence, and stability
12–13	Benchmarks, optional pressure recovery, and assessment
14–17	Finite-difference tutorial: examples, stencils, algebraic system
18–22	Code walkthrough and visual algorithm guide
23	Coverage map of all original lecture sections
24–27	Pressure elimination, full pressure derivation, references

Conventions. A right-handed (x, y, z) system is used, with x rightward and y upward. Positive $\omega = \omega_z$ means counterclockwise local rotation. Dimensional quantities have a subscript d when scales are introduced. After nondimensionalization, unadorned variables are dimensionless.

Scope. A constant-density, constant-viscosity Newtonian fluid; two-dimensional incompressible motion; no nonconservative body force. The cavity is a square with a uniformly translating top wall. This is a teaching model, not a model for rarefied or compressible flow.

1 Fluids, fields, and acceleration

A fluid continuously deforms under an applied shear stress. A solid can sustain a static shear deformation; a fluid keeps deforming under sustained shear. Air, water, oil, and gas mixtures are examples. Both liquids and gases are fluids, although their density and compressibility differ. In the continuum description, density, velocity, pressure, and temperature are fields rather than properties of individually tracked molecules. The approximation requires molecular length scales to be small compared with the relevant flow scales.

Symbol	Meaning	SI unit
ρ	Density	kg m^{-3}
$u_d = (u_d, v_d)$	Velocity	m s^{-1}
p_d	Pressure	Pa
μ	Dynamic viscosity	Pa s
$\nu = \mu/\rho$	Kinematic viscosity	$\text{m}^2 \text{s}^{-1}$
T	Temperature (thermal state)	K
ψ_d	Two-dimensional streamfunction	$\text{m}^2 \text{s}^{-1}$
ω_d	Out-of-plane vorticity	s^{-1}

Here ρ is mass per unit volume, p_d is isotropic compressive normal stress, μ measures resistance to shear deformation, and ν is momentum diffusivity. Temperature is not solved in this constant-property cavity model.

In an Eulerian description, $u_d = u_d(x_d, y_d, t_d)$: we ask what passes a fixed position. A Lagrangian description instead follows a moving particle. The cavity notebook uses Eulerian arrays, with $u[j, i]$ representing the horizontal velocity at (x_i, y_j) .

Why acceleration is not just a time derivative. Follow a fluid particle with $dx_d/dt_d = u_d$ and $dy_d/dt_d = v_d$. Applying the chain rule to its horizontal velocity gives

$$\frac{Du_d}{Dt_d} = \frac{\partial u_d}{\partial t_d} + u_d \frac{\partial u_d}{\partial x_d} + v_d \frac{\partial u_d}{\partial y_d}. \quad (1)$$

The first term describes change at a fixed point; the last two describe change as the particle moves through a nonuniform field. A steady flow can therefore have nonzero acceleration. The vector statement is

$$\frac{Du_d}{Dt_d} = \frac{\partial u_d}{\partial t_d} + (u_d \cdot \nabla_d) u_d. \quad (2)$$

From physics to arrays

- A continuous field becomes values at grid nodes, not a photograph of exact values everywhere.
- A spatial derivative becomes a difference between neighboring entries.
- Boundary conditions become constraints on boundary entries.
- A residual measures an equation defect or an iteration change; neither is automatically the error relative to the exact solution.

Check your understanding. Can a particle accelerate when $\partial u_d / \partial t_d = 0$? Explain using a particle turning around a cavity vortex.

2 Review: continuity and momentum

Mass conservation. The general continuity equation is

$$\frac{\partial \rho}{\partial t_d} + \nabla_d \cdot (\rho u_d) = 0. \quad (3)$$

For the constant-density fluid used here, it becomes

$$\boxed{\frac{\partial u_d}{\partial x_d} + \frac{\partial v_d}{\partial y_d} = 0.} \quad (4)$$

A small material fluid element preserves its volume: local inflow and outflow balance. This does not require either velocity component to be spatially constant.

Momentum conservation. For an incompressible Newtonian fluid with constant properties and no body force, the vector statement is $\partial_t u_d + (u_d \cdot \nabla_d) u_d = -\rho^{-1} \nabla_d p_d + \nu \nabla_d^2 u_d$, where the time derivative is with respect to t_d . Written componentwise:

$$\underbrace{\frac{\partial u_d}{\partial t_d}}_{\text{local change}} + \underbrace{u_d \frac{\partial u_d}{\partial x_d} + v_d \frac{\partial u_d}{\partial y_d}}_{\text{convection}} = \underbrace{-\frac{1}{\rho} \frac{\partial p_d}{\partial x_d}}_{\text{pressure force}} + \underbrace{\nu \left(\frac{\partial^2 u_d}{\partial x_d^2} + \frac{\partial^2 u_d}{\partial y_d^2} \right)}_{\text{viscous diffusion}}, \quad (5)$$

$$\frac{\partial v_d}{\partial t_d} + u_d \frac{\partial v_d}{\partial x_d} + v_d \frac{\partial v_d}{\partial y_d} = -\frac{1}{\rho} \frac{\partial p_d}{\partial y_d} + \nu \left(\frac{\partial^2 v_d}{\partial x_d^2} + \frac{\partial^2 v_d}{\partial y_d^2} \right). \quad (6)$$

Every term has units of acceleration. Pressure gradients push fluid from high toward low pressure; viscosity diffuses momentum between neighboring regions. Convection is nonlinear because the unknown velocity multiplies derivatives of the unknown velocity.

Three unknown fields. Equations (4)–(6) couple u_d , v_d , and p_d . Pressure-based CFD algorithms can solve this system directly while enforcing incompressibility. In this lecture we transform it into a system for ψ and ω that is especially convenient for a two-dimensional simply connected cavity. The transformed system still represents momentum conservation.

Initial and boundary data. A time-dependent problem also needs an initial velocity field consistent with incompressibility and the prescribed conditions. The teaching solver starts from zero interior fields and applies the moving lid impulsively. The initial boundary jump creates a transient before the flow approaches a steady state.

Check your understanding. Write the vertical convective acceleration. Why would using only the horizontal momentum equation leave the cavity problem incomplete?

3 Deriving the nondimensional equations

Let L be the cavity side length and $U > 0$ the lid-speed scale. Choose the convective time L/U and dynamic pressure ρU^2 . Define

$$x = \frac{x_d}{L}, \quad y = \frac{y_d}{L}, \quad t = \frac{t_d U}{L}, \quad u = \frac{u_d}{U}, \quad v = \frac{v_d}{U}, \quad p = \frac{p_d - p_{\text{ref}}}{\rho U^2}. \quad (7)$$

The newly defined variables x, y, t, u, v, p are dimensionless. The chain rule gives, for example,

$$\begin{aligned} \frac{\partial u_d}{\partial t_d} &= \frac{U^2}{L} u_t, & u_d \frac{\partial u_d}{\partial x_d} &= \frac{U^2}{L} u u_x, \\ \frac{1}{\rho} (p_d)_{x_d} &= \frac{U^2}{L} p_x, & v \nabla_d^2 u_d &= \frac{v U}{L^2} \nabla^2 u. \end{aligned}$$

Divide horizontal momentum by U^2/L . The coefficient of diffusion is $v/(UL) = 1/Re$, where

$$\boxed{Re = \frac{UL}{\nu} = \frac{\rho UL}{\mu}}. \quad (8)$$

The dimensionless system, with subscripts denoting derivatives, is

$$u_x + v_y = 0, \quad (9)$$

$$u_t + u u_x + v u_y = -p_x + \frac{1}{Re} (u_{xx} + u_{yy}), \quad (10)$$

$$v_t + u v_x + v v_y = -p_y + \frac{1}{Re} (v_{xx} + v_{yy}). \quad (11)$$

Interpretation. Reynolds number compares inertial and viscous effects using the chosen scales. Its value alone does not give a universal transition threshold: geometry, disturbances, and boundary conditions also matter. At small Re , viscous diffusion dominates; increasing inertia can produce recirculation and thinner layers. At sufficiently large Re , instability, transition, and turbulence may occur, depending on the flow. These are tendencies, not universal Reynolds-number thresholds.

Notebook translation. The square becomes $0 \leq x, y \leq 1$, and the lid speed is $u = 1$. At $Re = 100$, the dimensionless diffusion coefficient is 0.01. This does *not* imply a physical kinematic viscosity of $0.01 \text{ m}^2/\text{s}$ unless the dimensional scales make that true. For example, $L = 0.1 \text{ m}$ and $U = 0.01 \text{ m/s}$ give $\nu = 10^{-5} \text{ m}^2/\text{s}$ at the same Reynolds number.

Two more scales. Set $\psi = \psi_d/(UL)$ and $\omega = \omega_d L/U$. These choices preserve $u = \psi_y$, $v = -\psi_x$, and $\omega = v_x - u_y$. All equations on the following pages use dimensionless variables unless stated otherwise.

Check your understanding. Which time in seconds corresponds to dimensionless $t = 10$ for the example above? Answer: 100s.

4 Streamfunction and vorticity: definitions

For a sufficiently smooth, two-dimensional incompressible velocity field in this simply connected domain, introduce a scalar streamfunction ψ through

$$\boxed{u = \psi_y, \quad v = -\psi_x.} \quad (12)$$

Substitution into continuity gives

$$u_x + v_y = \psi_{yx} - \psi_{xy} = 0, \quad (13)$$

because the mixed derivatives commute. Thus the streamfunction representation builds mass conservation into the continuous equations.

Why its contours are streamlines. At a fixed instant,

$$u \cdot \nabla \psi = u \psi_x + v \psi_y = \psi_y \psi_x - \psi_x \psi_y = 0. \quad (14)$$

Velocity is tangent to a contour $\psi = \text{constant}$. For unsteady flow these instantaneous streamlines need not be particle paths. At fixed x , the volume flow rate per unit depth between y_1 and y_2 is $\int_{y_1}^{y_2} u \, dy = \psi(x, y_2) - \psi(x, y_1)$.

Vorticity. The curl of velocity has only a z component in this two-dimensional flow:

$$\boxed{\omega = v_x - u_y.} \quad (15)$$

Vorticity measures local rotation; the local rigid-body angular velocity is $\omega/2$. It is not speed, and it is not the curvature of a streamline. A shear flow can have nonzero vorticity even with straight streamlines.

Example: Couette shear. For $u = y$, $v = 0$, choose $\psi = y^2/2$. Then $u = \psi_y$, $v = -\psi_x$, and $\omega = -1$. Horizontal layers move at different speeds, producing clockwise local rotation. This sign convention is also consistent with the negative wall vorticity generated by a rightward-moving cavity lid.

A useful numerical distinction. Central differences for $u = D_y \psi$ and $v = -D_x \psi$ give a zero discrete divergence wherever the same commuting stencils are used. Overwriting wall velocities or switching stencils near boundaries requires separate checks; the continuum identity is not a guarantee that every boundary discretization is consistent.

Check your understanding. For solid-body rotation $u = -\Omega y$, $v = \Omega x$, find ω and a compatible ψ . Answer: 2Ω and $-\Omega(x^2 + y^2)/2$ plus a constant.

5 Proof of the streamfunction Poisson equation

This is the proof requested for Eq. (15) in the previous lecture. Begin with the definitions; no new physical assumption is needed beyond those already stated:

$$\omega = \frac{\partial v}{\partial x} - \frac{\partial u}{\partial y}, \quad (16)$$

$$v = -\psi_x \implies v_x = -\psi_{xx}, \quad (17)$$

$$u = \psi_y \implies u_y = \psi_{yy}. \quad (18)$$

Therefore

$$\omega = -\psi_{xx} - \psi_{yy} = -\nabla^2 \psi, \quad (19)$$

and hence

$$\boxed{\nabla^2 \psi = -\omega.} \quad (20)$$

The minus sign follows from the paired conventions $u = \psi_y$, $v = -\psi_x$ and $\omega = v_x - u_y$. Changing only one convention would change the problem incorrectly.

What this equation does. If ω is known throughout the interior and appropriate wall values of ψ are prescribed, Eq. (20) is an elliptic Poisson problem for ψ . Differentiating its solution then gives velocity. This is a spatial solve at each stage of the algorithm; the equation itself contains no time derivative.

A manufactured check. Let

$$\psi = \sin(\pi x) \sin(\pi y). \quad (21)$$

Then

$$u = \pi \sin(\pi x) \cos(\pi y), \quad v = -\pi \cos(\pi x) \sin(\pi y), \quad (22)$$

$$\omega = 2\pi^2 \sin(\pi x) \sin(\pi y), \quad \nabla^2 \psi = -2\pi^2 \sin(\pi x) \sin(\pi y). \quad (23)$$

This verifies the sign and provides smooth fields for checking derivative code. It is a manufactured identity check, *not* a no-slip cavity solution: although $\psi = 0$ on the boundary, tangential velocities generally do not vanish there.

Why $\psi = 0$ on the cavity walls? Impermeability makes ψ constant along each wall. The connected cavity boundary permits one common constant; choose zero because adding a constant leaves velocity unchanged. Tangential no-slip is additional information, enforced through the wall-vorticity relation on page 9. Specifying $\psi = 0$ alone does not impose a stationary wall.

Check your understanding. Explain why solving the Poisson equation once cannot determine the flow if its right-hand side ω is still unknown.

6 Optional derivation: vorticity transport

Use the dimensionless momentum equations from page 4. Take ∂_x of vertical momentum and subtract ∂_y of horizontal momentum. Smoothness allows mixed derivatives to commute.

Step 1: time and pressure.

$$\partial_x v_t - \partial_y u_t = \omega_t, \quad -p_{yx} + p_{xy} = 0.$$

Pressure disappears because the curl of a gradient is zero; pressure itself need not be uniform or zero.

Step 2: expand convection. Applying the product rule gives

$$\begin{aligned} \partial_x(uv_x + v v_y) - \partial_y(uu_x + v u_y) &= u(v_{xx} - u_{xy}) + v(v_{xy} - u_{yy}) \\ &\quad + u_x v_x + v_x v_y - u_y u_x - v_y u_y \\ &= u\omega_x + v\omega_y + (u_x + v_y)(v_x - u_y) \\ &= u\omega_x + v\omega_y. \end{aligned}$$

The last equality uses continuity, $u_x + v_y = 0$. This is the cancellation that should not be skipped when deriving the equation for the first time.

Step 3: viscous diffusion. Since Re is constant,

$$\frac{1}{Re} [\partial_x \nabla^2 v - \partial_y \nabla^2 u] = \frac{1}{Re} \nabla^2 \omega.$$

Combining the three steps yields

$$\omega_t + u\omega_x + v\omega_y = \frac{1}{Re} (\omega_{xx} + \omega_{yy}). \quad (24)$$

In dimensional variables the diffusion coefficient is ν , not $1/Re$.

Physical reading. Local vorticity changes through advection by the velocity field and diffusion by viscosity. Moving and stationary no-slip walls supply boundary vorticity. There is no vortex-stretching term for the strictly two-dimensional velocity field assumed here. Compressible, variable-property, three-dimensional, or forced flows can require additional terms.

Why solve this rather than momentum directly? Taking the curl removes the pressure unknown from the interior evolution equation, while ψ enforces incompressibility. This is a convenient reformulation for this geometry, not a claim that all CFD solvers should use it. Pressure-velocity methods remain suitable and often more convenient in general geometries and three dimensions.

Check your understanding. Does the absence of p from Eq. (24) mean pressure forces have no effect on the original flow? No: the equations were transformed, not discarded.

7 Why finite differences are needed

The PDEs describe fields at infinitely many points. A computer stores finitely many values. Finite differences replace derivatives by algebraic combinations of nearby samples, converting the PDEs into equations we can calculate. Finite volume, finite element, and spectral methods are alternatives; finite differences are chosen here for a transparent structured-grid implementation.

Use $x_i = i\Delta x$, $y_j = j\Delta y$, and $f_{j,i} = f(x_i, y_j)$. The first array index is y , the second is x . Taylor expansion gives

$$f_{j,i\pm 1} = f_{j,i} \pm \Delta x f_x + \frac{1}{2} \Delta x^2 f_{xx} \pm \frac{1}{6} \Delta x^3 f_{xxx} + \dots$$

Subtract the expansions for the first derivative; add them for the second:

$$(D_x f)_{j,i} = \frac{f_{j,i+1} - f_{j,i-1}}{2\Delta x} = f_x + O(\Delta x^2), \quad (25)$$

$$(D_{xx} f)_{j,i} = \frac{f_{j,i+1} - 2f_{j,i} + f_{j,i-1}}{\Delta x^2} = f_{xx} + O(\Delta x^2). \quad (26)$$

Analogous formulas use $j \pm 1$ for y derivatives. The rectangular-grid Laplacian is

$$(L_h f)_{j,i} = \frac{f_{j,i+1} - 2f_{j,i} + f_{j,i-1}}{\Delta x^2} + \frac{f_{j+1,i} - 2f_{j,i} + f_{j-1,i}}{\Delta y^2}. \quad (27)$$

For equal spacing h , this is $(f_E + f_W + f_N + f_S - 4f_C)/h^2$.

Poisson becomes a coupled algebraic system. Substituting into $L_h \psi = -\omega$ and solving for one node gives the Jacobi iteration

$$\psi_{j,i}^{k+1} = \frac{(\psi_{j,i+1}^k + \psi_{j,i-1}^k)\Delta y^2 + (\psi_{j+1,i}^k + \psi_{j-1,i}^k)\Delta x^2 + \omega_{j,i}\Delta x^2\Delta y^2}{2(\Delta x^2 + \Delta y^2)}. \quad (28)$$

Here k is an inner iteration index and ω is held fixed. At $h = 0.1$, if all four neighbor values are zero and $\omega_C = -2$, the first update gives $\psi_C = -0.005$. Neighboring unknowns must also be updated, so one sweep is not the full solution.

Vorticity gets a time update. Forward Euler with central spatial differences gives

$$\omega_{j,i}^{n+1} = \omega_{j,i}^n + \Delta t \left[-u_{j,i}^n (D_x \omega^n)_{j,i} - v_{j,i}^n (D_y \omega^n)_{j,i} + \frac{1}{Re} (L_h \omega^n)_{j,i} \right]. \quad (29)$$

The interior spatial formulas are second order for smooth fields; forward Euler is first order in time. Boundaries and corner singularities can limit the observed global accuracy.

8 Boundary conditions: closing the system

No slip means that the fluid velocity equals the solid-wall velocity; impermeability means no flow through the wall. The square cavity has $u = 1, v = 0$ on the moving top lid away from corners and $u = v = 0$ on the other walls. Set $\psi = 0$ on the entire boundary to impose impermeability. The tangential velocity conditions are encoded in boundary values of ω .

Derive the top-wall formula. Let P be the first interior point, a distance $h = \Delta y$ below the top wall w . Taylor expansion into the domain gives

$$\psi_P = \psi_w - h(\psi_y)_w + \frac{h^2}{2}(\psi_{yy})_w + O(h^3).$$

Along a straight wall where ψ is constant, $\psi_{xx} = 0$. Since $(\psi_y)_w = U_{\text{lid}}$ and $\omega_w = -\psi_{yy}|_w$,

$$\omega_{\text{top}} \approx -\frac{2(\psi_P - \psi_w)}{\Delta y^2} - \frac{2U_{\text{lid}}}{\Delta y}. \quad (30)$$

For this nondimensional cavity $U_{\text{lid}} = 1$ and $\psi_w = 0$. The same expansion at stationary walls gives

$$\omega_{\text{bottom}} \approx -2\psi_{1,i}/\Delta y^2, \quad (31)$$

$$\omega_{\text{left}} \approx -2\psi_{j,1}/\Delta x^2, \quad (32)$$

$$\omega_{\text{right}} \approx -2\psi_{j,N_x-2}/\Delta x^2. \quad (33)$$

The top uses $\psi_{N_y-2,i}$. These are the formulas in `apply_vorticity_boundary_conditions`. The local Taylor estimate for wall vorticity has an $O(h)$ neglected term; the second-order interior stencil alone does not prove second-order accuracy for the whole cavity solution.

Why wall vorticity changes during the solve. Even with a constant lid speed, ψ_P changes as the interior develops. Thus boundary vorticity must be recomputed when ψ changes. Setting all wall vorticity to zero would remove the no-slip physics.

Corners need an explicit convention. A uniform moving lid meets stationary sidewalls at a velocity discontinuity. The notebook averages adjacent wall-vorticity values at corners. Its velocity assignment leaves top-corner velocities at zero because the sidewall conditions are applied last. This is a discrete convention, not a smooth resolution of the continuum corner singularity. Interpret corner peaks and grid convergence accordingly.

Check your understanding. Initially $\psi = 0$ and $\Delta y = 1/64$. What top-wall vorticity is imposed away from corners? Answer: $\omega = -128$. Explain why this large boundary value is not the same as a large velocity.

9 Why the solver must iterate

Vorticity is transported by u, v , but those velocities are recovered from ψ , and ψ is obtained from ω . The fields are coupled:

$$\omega \longrightarrow \underbrace{\nabla^2 \psi = -\omega}_{\text{spatial solve}} \longrightarrow (u, v) \longrightarrow \underbrace{\omega_t = -u\omega_x - v\omega_y + Re^{-1}\nabla^2 \omega}_{\text{time update}}.$$

No one of these fields can be treated as a permanently known input while solving for the others.

Two different repetition processes

Process	What stays fixed?	Why repeat?
Inner sweeps (k)	Jacobi Current vorticity and wall ψ	Each unknown streamfunction value depends on unknown neighbors.
Outer time steps (n)	Geometry, Re , and lid motion	Vorticity, velocity, and wall vorticity evolve together toward the target state.

A direct linear solver could replace the inner Jacobi loop. Thus iteration is not a mathematical requirement for every Poisson solver; it is the notebook's chosen solution method. The outer loop here integrates an initial transient toward steady flow. For a genuinely unsteady target, one would retain the time history instead of requiring a steady state.

Algorithm matching `run_cavity`

1. Initialize interior $\psi = \omega = 0$; apply wall-vorticity conditions.
2. With current ω , take 60 Jacobi sweeps for ψ , keeping boundary $\psi = 0$.
3. Recompute wall vorticity using this ψ and the prescribed lid speed.
4. Calculate interior $u = D_y \psi$, $v = -D_x \psi$; impose wall velocities.
5. Advance interior ω by one forward-Euler step using these velocities.
6. Reapply wall vorticity and, at reporting steps, record relative vorticity change.
7. Repeat steps 2–6 for the specified number of time steps. Finally use 120 Poisson sweeps and recover wall vorticity and velocity again.

Teaching settings. The default example uses 65×65 nodes, $Re = 100$, $\Delta t = 0.001$, and 10,000 steps, corresponding to dimensionless $t = 10$. The notebook reports progress but runs to a fixed step count; it does not terminate automatically when a tolerance is reached. Sixty sweeps are a computational setting, not proof of Poisson convergence.

Check your understanding. If you increase the number of Poisson sweeps without taking any additional outer time steps, what error can decrease and what physical evolution has not occurred?

10 Convergence and stability are different checks

Iteration change. The notebook reports

$$R_{\Delta\omega} = \frac{\|\omega^{n+1} - \omega^n\|_2}{\|\omega^{n+1}\|_2 + 10^{-30}}. \quad (34)$$

A small update is useful evidence, but a smaller Δt can make it small even when the steady PDE defect remains large. In forward Euler, the interior update divided by Δt is the current transport right-hand side.

Equation defects. For stronger checks, evaluate the interior fields with consistent stencils:

$$r_\psi = L_h \psi + \omega, \quad (35)$$

$$r_\omega = u D_x \omega + v D_y \omega - Re^{-1} L_h \omega \quad (\text{steady target}), \quad (36)$$

$$r_{\text{div}} = D_x u + D_y v. \quad (37)$$

Report a norm such as RMS or maximum absolute value, the grid and normalization, and the wall-velocity error. These are recommended diagnostics; the introductory solver's existing progress printout only reports $R_{\Delta\omega}$.

Explicit time-step restrictions. For the diffusion-only forward-Euler update on this grid, the standard restriction is

$$\frac{\Delta t}{Re} \left(\frac{1}{\Delta x^2} + \frac{1}{\Delta y^2} \right) \leq \frac{1}{2}. \quad (38)$$

For $h = 1/64$ and $Re = 100$, this gives $\Delta t \leq Re h^2 / 4 \approx 0.00610$. The notebook's 0.001 passes this *diffusion-only* check. Also monitor advective Courant numbers, for example

$$C_x = \max |u| \Delta t / \Delta x, \quad C_y = \max |v| \Delta t / \Delta y.$$

These checks do not by themselves prove stability of the coupled solver. Forward Euler with centered differences is unstable for pure advection; diffusion, resolution, boundary treatment, and the complete discretization matter. At higher Reynolds numbers, a different time integrator or convection scheme may be needed.

Three practical comparisons. First tighten the Poisson solve and increase integration time at a fixed grid. Next reduce Δt to check temporal sensitivity. Then refine the grid and compare quantities of interest. Do not confuse a converged algebraic solve with an accurate continuum solution. A small ML loss has the same limitation: it certifies only what the chosen loss actually measures.

Check your understanding. A run's reported update falls when Δt is divided by ten. What additional evidence is needed before calling the flow steady?

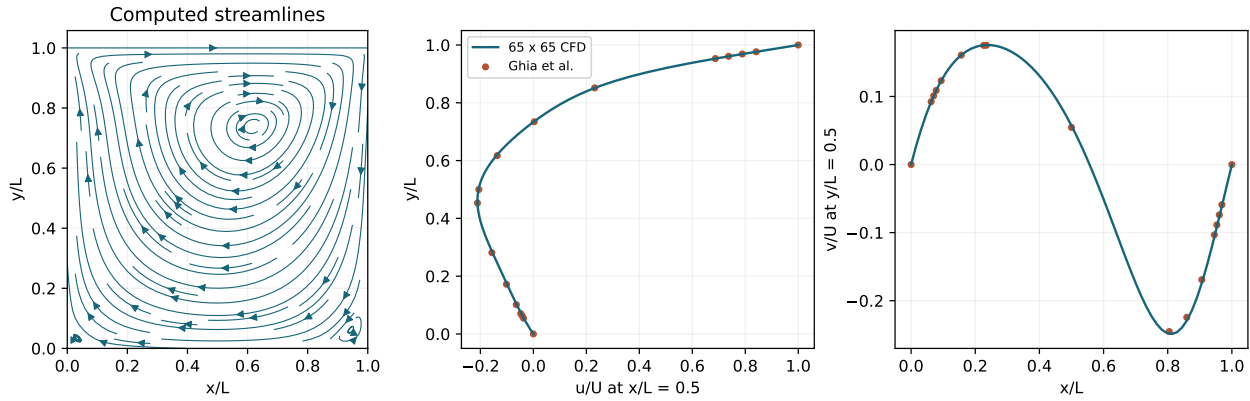
11 Benchmarks and the Ghia comparison

Couette flow gives a linear velocity profile for a simple shear-driven problem. Plane Poiseuille flow gives a parabolic profile for a fully developed pressure-driven channel. Both help isolate basic derivative and boundary-condition errors. The lid-driven cavity combines recirculation, walls, and nonlinear convection, making it a more demanding benchmark.

Compare quantities, not only pictures. Ghia, Ghia, and Shin [1] tabulate u/U on the vertical centerline $x/L = 0.5$ and v/U on the horizontal centerline $y/L = 0.5$. The notebook interpolates the computed profiles to those sampling positions and calculates

$$E_u = \frac{\|u_{\text{interp}} - u_{\text{Ghia}}\|_2}{\|u_{\text{Ghia}}\|_2}, \quad E_v = \frac{\|v_{\text{interp}} - v_{\text{Ghia}}\|_2}{\|v_{\text{Ghia}}\|_2}. \quad (39)$$

These are errors at benchmark sample points, not full-domain errors. Use the same Reynolds number, velocity normalization, centerline locations, and sign convention.



Fresh teaching computation. Existing notebook solver, $Re = 100$, 65×65 nodes, $\Delta t = 0.001$, 10,000 steps, 60 inner sweeps per step. Markers are the notebook's Ghia table values. The relative centerline errors are $E_u = 0.343\%$ and $E_v = 1.771\%$; the last reported relative vorticity change is 6.02×10^{-7} . The associated `validation.json` records these diagnostics. This single-grid comparison is not grid-independent certification.

Interpret the flow. The rightward lid drives a dominant clockwise circulation. Near the vertical centerline the lower part of the cavity has negative u , showing the return flow. Weak corner eddies may be difficult to resolve or display: streamline density, grid resolution, and convergence all affect their appearance. A plausible vortex alone is not validation.

From fields to ML tensors. A field of shape (N_y, N_x) can become one channel of an array with channels (u, v, ω) , and multiple cases add a batch dimension. Preserve axes, scales, boundary conventions, and parameter labels. Before using these arrays as training targets, qualify their numerical accuracy; a network trained on inaccurate CFD can reproduce its errors.

Check your understanding. Why can a visually smooth predicted vortex still have a poor centerline error or violate the wall condition?

12 Optional pressure recovery and exit questions

Taking the divergence of dimensionless momentum, using $\nabla \cdot u = 0$, gives

$$\nabla^2 p = - \left[u_x^2 + 2u_y v_x + v_y^2 \right]. \quad (40)$$

Under our assumptions, this is a consequence of momentum conservation, not merely an empirical approximation. For dimensional pressure the right-hand side carries a factor ρ and uses dimensional velocity gradients.

The right-hand side is not the whole pressure problem. Boundary conditions must also be supplied consistently with momentum. For outward wall normal n ,

$$\frac{\partial p}{\partial n} = n \cdot \left[-\partial_t u - (u \cdot \nabla) u + Re^{-1} \nabla^2 u \right]. \quad (41)$$

One must handle discrete compatibility when using Neumann data. Pressure is then determined only up to an additive constant: set a reference value or subtract its mean. Subtracting the mean fixes the gauge; it does not repair an incorrect pressure boundary condition. Pressure reconstruction is an extension, not a prerequisite for the Week-1 velocity solve.

After Week 1, you should be able to

1. Write continuity and both momentum components, and derive their nondimensional form.
2. Define ψ and ω , explain their physical meaning, and prove $\nabla^2 \psi = -\omega$.
3. Explain why the vorticity equation needs velocities and how the coupled solve obtains them.
4. Convert a derivative and the Poisson equation into finite differences, keeping array axes consistent.
5. Distinguish inner Poisson iteration, outer time evolution, stability, convergence, and validation.
6. Compare centerline profiles quantitatively and describe the limits of that evidence.

Optional derivation exercise. Reproduce the curl-of-momentum calculation on page 7, identifying the exact use of incompressibility. Then derive the moving-wall vorticity formula from a Taylor expansion.

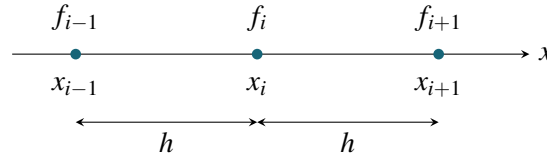
References and authorship scope

- [1] U. Ghia, K. N. Ghia, and C. T. Shin (1982). High-Re solutions for incompressible flow using the Navier–Stokes equations and a multigrid method. *Journal of Computational Physics*, 48, 387–411. Benchmark data used by the existing notebook.
- [2] F. M. White and H. Xue (2022). *Fluid Mechanics*, 9th ed. McGraw Hill. Background on conservation laws and incompressible flow.
- [3] J. D. Anderson (1995). *Computational Fluid Dynamics: The Basics with Applications*. McGraw Hill. Background on discretization and numerical solution.

Explanations and derivations were independently written for FlowMLLab’s introductory cavity example, using the requested topic checklist. The figure is a fresh execution of FlowMLLab’s own solver. No restricted course text, solution, figure, or code was incorporated. No ML split or calibration is involved in this numerical-foundations extension; its baseline is the stated Ghia centerline comparison.

A1 Finite differences: from a slope to a formula

A derivative is a limiting slope, $f'(x_i) = \lim_{h \rightarrow 0} [f(x_i + h) - f(x_i)]/h$. On a grid, h is finite. We approximate the derivative using available samples and ask how the neglected terms depend on h . A difference is the numerator; a derivative approximation also divides by the correct distance.



Expand about x_i , keeping the signs of odd powers:

$$f_{i+1} = f_i + hf'_i + \frac{h^2}{2}f''_i + \frac{h^3}{6}f'''_i + O(h^4),$$

$$f_{i-1} = f_i - hf'_i + \frac{h^2}{2}f''_i - \frac{h^3}{6}f'''_i + O(h^4).$$

Using the first line alone gives a forward difference. Using the second gives a backward difference. Subtracting the two cancels the even powers and gives a centered difference:

Method	Approximation to f'_i	Leading error
Forward	$(f_{i+1} - f_i)/h$	$+(h/2)f''_i$
Backward	$(f_i - f_{i-1})/h$	$-(h/2)f''_i$
Centered	$(f_{i+1} - f_{i-1})/(2h)$	$+(h^2/6)f'''_i$

Why $2h$? The centered numerator spans from $x_i - h$ to $x_i + h$, a distance $2h$. Dividing it by h would double the derivative. The centered estimate uses symmetric neighbors and cancels the first-order error for smooth fields.

Boundary distinction. At $i = 0$ there is no stored f_{-1} . A centered stencil therefore needs ghost values or a different boundary formula. A second-order one-sided derivative is $(-3f_0 + 4f_1 - f_2)/(2h)$. The cavity code instead imposes wall velocities directly and obtains wall vorticity from the streamfunction Taylor expansion on page 9.

Check your understanding. Which approximation needs the center value f_i , and which needs both neighbors? Do not confuse the first derivative with the three-point second derivative on the next page.

A2 Worked examples: accuracy and curvature

Take $f(x) = x^3$ at $x = 1$. The exact slope is $f'(1) = 3$. For $h = 0.1$, the samples are $f(0.9) = 0.729$, $f(1) = 1$, and $f(1.1) = 1.331$:

$$D_+f = \frac{1.331 - 1}{0.1} = 3.31, \quad D_-f = \frac{1 - 0.729}{0.1} = 2.71, \quad D_0f = \frac{1.331 - 0.729}{0.2} = 3.01.$$

h	Forward	Backward	Centered	$ D_0f - 3 $
0.10	3.3100	2.7100	3.0100	0.0100
0.05	3.1525	2.8525	3.0025	0.0025

Halving h reduces the centered error by a factor of four here. This is what second-order truncation error means: approximately Ch^2 for a smooth fixed function as h decreases. It does not mean two decimal places or two iterations. At extremely small spacing, roundoff and subtractive cancellation can become important.

Second derivative: add instead of subtract. Adding the Taylor expansions eliminates the odd powers:

$$f_{i+1} + f_{i-1} = 2f_i + h^2 f_i'' + \frac{h^4}{12} f_i^{(4)} + O(h^6).$$

Thus

$$D_{xx}f_i = \frac{f_{i+1} - 2f_i + f_{i-1}}{h^2} = f_i'' + \frac{h^2}{12} f_i^{(4)} + O(h^4).$$

This measures how the slope changes, or curvature. For $f = x^4$ at $x = 1$ with $h = 0.1$, it gives $(1.4641 - 2 + 0.6561)/0.01 = 12.02$, compared with the exact value 12. At $h = 0.05$ it gives 12.005: the error again decreases fourfold.

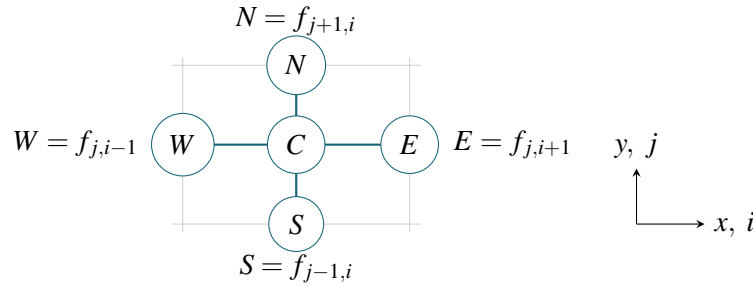
Small executable example (independent of the CFD run)

```
for h in (0.1, 0.05):
    f = lambda x: x**3
    forward = (f(1+h) - f(1)) / h
    backward = (f(1) - f(1-h)) / h
    centered = (f(1+h) - f(1-h)) / (2*h)
    curvature = ((1+h)**4 - 2 + (1-h)**4) / h**2
    print(h, forward, backward, centered, curvature)
```

Check your understanding. For $f = x^2$, centered first and second derivatives are exact in exact arithmetic. Why is that example alone insufficient to demonstrate the observed order of a general derivative approximation?

A3 The two-dimensional stencil and array slices

At (x_i, y_j) , use two neighbors in x and two in y . Equal spacing gives the five-point Laplacian. Diagonal nodes are not used by this stencil.



$$L_h f = \frac{E - 2C + W}{\Delta x^2} + \frac{N - 2C + S}{\Delta y^2} \xrightarrow{\Delta x = \Delta y = h} \frac{E + W + N + S - 4C}{h^2}.$$

Numerical check. For $f = x^2 + 3y^2$ at $(0.5, 0.5)$ and $h = 0.1$, $(C, E, W, N, S) = (1, 1.11, 0.91, 1.33, 0.73)$. Then $L_h f = (4.08 - 4)/0.01 = 8$, matching $f_{xx} + f_{yy} = 2 + 6$. This smooth polynomial is a stencil check, not a cavity solution.

One stencil, many nodes at once. In an $N_y \times N_x$ NumPy array:

Stencil part	Python slice	Shape
Center	<code>f[1:-1, 1:-1]</code>	$(N_y - 2, N_x - 2)$
East / west	<code>f[1:-1, 2:] / f[1:-1, :-2]</code>	Same
North / south	<code>f[2:, 1:-1] / f[:-2, 1:-1]</code>	Same

`1:-1` excludes the first and last entries; `2:` starts at index 2; `:-2` stops before the last two entries. NumPy applies arithmetic element by element to these equally shaped blocks. For $N = 65$, every interior block is 63×63 .

Read `laplacian(phi, dx, dy)`. It allocates `zeros_like(phi)`, fills only the interior using the two second differences, and returns an array of the original shape. Its zero boundary entries are uncomputed placeholders, not a claim that the physical Laplacian is zero at a wall. The transport function writes the same interior stencil explicitly.

A4 From the Poisson stencil to a coupled system

For equal spacing, $L_h \psi = -\omega$ becomes

$$4\psi_C - \psi_E - \psi_W - \psi_N - \psi_S = h^2 \omega_C.$$

Solving this row for ψ_C gives a local update, but its four neighbors are also unknown. This is why discretization produces a *system* of equations rather than a collection of independent calculations.

A four-unknown problem you can solve by hand. Take two interior nodes in each direction in the unit square: $h = 1/3$. All boundary values of ψ are zero. Label the interior values a, b along the lower row and c, d along the upper row, and prescribe $\omega = -2$ at all four interior nodes. Then

$$\begin{bmatrix} 4 & -1 & -1 & 0 \\ -1 & 4 & 0 & -1 \\ -1 & 0 & 4 & -1 \\ 0 & -1 & -1 & 4 \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} a \\ b \\ c \\ d \end{bmatrix} = -\frac{2}{9} \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \\ 1 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix}.$$

The solution is $a = b = c = d = -1/9$. This example tests the Poisson equation only; its prescribed vorticity is not obtained from a complete no-slip cavity solve.

Jacobi iteration from zero. Update each node from the *previous sweep's* neighbors:

$$a^{k+1} = \frac{1}{4}(b^k + c^k - 2/9), \quad b^{k+1} = \frac{1}{4}(a^k + d^k - 2/9),$$

with analogous rows for c, d . Symmetry makes all four entries identical in this example:

Sweep k	Each interior ψ	Error relative to $-1/9$
0	0	1/9
1	$-1/18$	1/18
2	$-1/12$	1/36
3	$-7/72$	1/72
∞	$-1/9$	0

Why the code uses `old = psi.copy()`. A complete snapshot makes the dependence on the old sweep explicit. In a nested point loop, immediately reusing updated neighbors would instead give a Gauss–Seidel-type sweep. In NumPy, the whole right-hand expression is evaluated before assignment, but `.copy()` also makes the algorithm unambiguous and preserves the earlier values.

This Poisson iteration index k is not time. Its inputs are a fixed current ω and fixed wall ψ . After this solve, the outer algorithm evolves ω and must solve a new Poisson problem.

B1 Reading the code: grid and Poisson solve

The following excerpts are from the introductory solver in `03_cavity_ghia.ipynb`; comments and line wrapping are added for teaching. Execute the definitions before calling `run_cavity`. The separate pressure-validation cells at the start of that notebook are not required to understand these functions.

build_grid(N): positions before fields

```
x = np.linspace(0.0, 1.0, N)
y = np.linspace(0.0, 1.0, N)
X, Y = np.meshgrid(x, y)
dx = x[1] - x[0]
dy = y[1] - y[0]
```

`linspace` includes both endpoints, so N nodes give $N - 1$ intervals and $\Delta x = 1/(N - 1)$. With the default `meshgrid` indexing, $X[j,i]=x[i]$ and $Y[j,i]=y[j]$. X,Y are coordinate arrays for plotting; they are not the velocity fields. The function returns all six arrays/scalars. For $N = 65$, `x.shape=(65,)` and `X.shape=(65,65)`.

solve_streamfunction_poisson: implement the algebra

```
dx2 = dx**2
dy2 = dy**2
denom = 2.0 * (dx2 + dy2)
for _ in range(iterations):
    old = psi.copy()
    psi[1:-1, 1:-1] = (
        (old[1:-1, 2:] + old[1:-1, :-2]) * dy2
        + (old[2:, 1:-1] + old[:-2, 1:-1]) * dx2
        + omega[1:-1, 1:-1] * dx2 * dy2
    ) / denom
    psi[0, :] = 0.0
    psi[-1, :] = 0.0
    psi[:, 0] = 0.0
    psi[:, -1] = 0.0
```

The first neighbor sum is east plus west; the second is north plus south. Multiplying the finite-difference equation by $\Delta x^2 \Delta y^2$ explains the apparently crossed weights: east/west gets `dy2` and north/south gets `dx2`. The *positive* omega term in the numerator is correct for $\nabla^2 \psi = -\omega$.

`range(iterations)` performs a fixed number of sweeps; the underscore means that the loop counter is unused. The four assignments restore the Dirichlet wall values after each sweep. There is no residual-based stopping test inside this function. The returned `psi` is then used to calculate velocity.

B2 Reading the code: wall vorticity and velocity

apply_vorticity_boundary_conditions

```
omega[0, 1:-1] = -2.0 * psi[1, 1:-1] / dy**2
omega[-1, 1:-1] = (
    -2.0 * psi[-2, 1:-1] / dy**2 - 2.0 * U / dy
)
omega[1:-1, 0] = -2.0 * psi[1:-1, 1] / dx**2
omega[1:-1, -1] = -2.0 * psi[1:-1, -2] / dx**2
```

Line 1 updates the bottom, lines 2–4 the top, then the left and right walls. Index -1 means the last row or column and -2 the next-to-last one. Since y increases from 0 to 1, the last row is the top wall. The top-wall expression contains the additional moving-lid term derived on page 9.

Slices exclude corners because two different walls meet there. The notebook sets each corner to the average of its adjacent wall values, for example

```
omega[-1, 0] = 0.5 * (omega[-1, 1] + omega[-2, 0])
```

This function updates the supplied array in place and returns it. The caller's ω therefore changes; it is not an independent new array.

compute_velocity: **derivatives of the new streamfunction**

```
u = np.zeros_like(psi)
v = np.zeros_like(psi)
u[1:-1, 1:-1] = (
    psi[2:, 1:-1] - psi[:-2, 1:-1]
) / (2.0 * dy)
v[1:-1, 1:-1] = -(
    psi[1:-1, 2:] - psi[1:-1, :-2]
) / (2.0 * dx)
u[0, :] = 0.0
u[-1, :] = U
u[:, 0] = 0.0
u[:, -1] = 0.0
```

Horizontal velocity uses a difference in the *first* index because $u = \psi_y$. Vertical velocity uses a difference in the second index and a minus sign because $v = -\psi_x$. The notebook also explicitly sets all four boundaries of v to zero.

The final two assignments for u overwrite the top corners with zero. Changing assignment order can change the corner convention. For the lecture's nondimensional $Re = 100$ case, keep $U=1$; changing only U while holding the diffusion coefficient $1/Re$ fixed changes the effective Reynolds number based on the actual lid speed.

B3 Reading the code: one vorticity time step

`advance_vorticity` takes the current fields and returns both updated vorticity and the old snapshot. The snapshot is needed for explicit stepping and the change diagnostic.

```
old = omega.copy()
dwdx = (old[1:-1, 2:] - old[1:-1, :-2]) / (2.0 * dx)
dwdy = (old[2:, 1:-1] - old[:-2, 1:-1]) / (2.0 * dy)
lap_omega = (
    (old[1:-1, 2:] - 2.0*old[1:-1, 1:-1]
     + old[1:-1, :-2]) / dx**2
    + (old[2:, 1:-1] - 2.0*old[1:-1, 1:-1]
     + old[:-2, 1:-1]) / dy**2
)
convection = u[1:-1, 1:-1]*dwdx + v[1:-1, 1:-1]*dwdy
diffusion = (1.0 / Re) * lap_omega
omega[1:-1, 1:-1] = (
    old[1:-1, 1:-1] + dt * (-convection + diffusion)
)
return omega, old
```

Code quantity	Mathematical meaning
dwdx, dwdy	$D_x \omega^n, D_y \omega^n$
lap_omega	$L_h \omega^n$
convection	$u^n D_x \omega^n + v^n D_y \omega^n$
diffusion	$Re^{-1} L_h \omega^n$
-convection + diffusion	Approximation to $\partial \omega / \partial t$

The transport equation has convection on the left. Moving it to the right explains the minus sign in the update. Multiplying the right-hand side by `dt` converts a rate of change into an increment. There is no division by `dt` in the final explicit update.

One-node calculation. Suppose $\omega^n = -2$, $u = 0.4$, $v = -0.1$, $D_x \omega = 3$, $D_y \omega = -2$, and $L_h \omega = 20$. At $Re = 100$ and $\Delta t = 0.001$, convection is 1.4, diffusion is 0.2, and

$$\omega^{n+1} = -2 + 0.001(-1.4 + 0.2) = -2.0012.$$

These supplied local numbers illustrate the arithmetic, not a measured cavity point. For a real node, the surrounding old-field values determine all three derivatives.

Only interior entries are advanced. Boundary entries are imposed separately by the wall-vorticity function, after the update. Mixing new and old neighbor values inside this explicit stencil would implement a different numerical method.

B4 Reading the code: orchestration and diagnostics

`run_cavity` creates the grid, initializes zero arrays, and imposes wall vorticity before entering this loop. This excerpt follows the actual call order; the long diagnostic expression is wrapped for readability.

```
for step in range(1, steps + 1):
    psi = solve_streamfunction_poisson(
        psi, omega, dx, dy, iterations=poisson_iters)
    omega = apply_vorticity_boundary_conditions(
        psi, omega, U, dx, dy)
    u, v = compute_velocity(psi, U, dx, dy)
    omega, old_omega = advance_vorticity(
        omega, u, v, Re, dt, dx, dy)
    omega = apply_vorticity_boundary_conditions(
        psi, omega, U, dx, dy)
    if step % report_every == 0:
        residual = (np.linalg.norm(omega - old_omega)
                    / (np.linalg.norm(omega) + 1e-30))
        residual_steps.append(step)
        residual_values.append(residual)
```

`range(1, steps+1)` includes the final requested step. The modulo condition reports every `report_every` steps; it does not skip evolution between reports. For a two-dimensional array, this use of `np.linalg.norm` gives the Frobenius norm, the square root of the sum of squared entries.

After the loop the code performs another Poisson solve with `2*poisson_iters`, reapplies wall vorticity, and recomputes velocity. It returns a dictionary containing coordinates, fields, diagnostics, and run parameters. Access a field as `result["u"]`. The final adjustment means the last printed change diagnostic is not a fresh simultaneous residual evaluation of every returned equation.

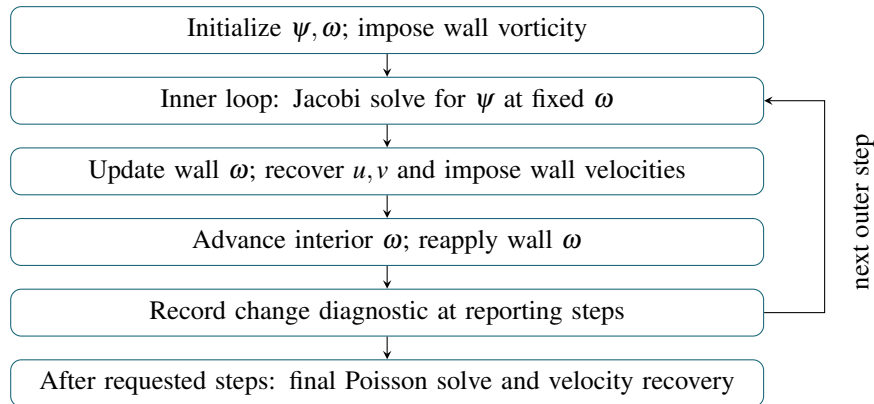
`centerline_profiles` and `ghia_errors`

```
mid = len(x) // 2
u_center = u[:, mid] / U
v_center = v[mid, :] / U
u_interp = np.interp(GHIA_Y, y, u_center)
v_interp = np.interp(GHIA_X, x, v_center)
err_u = np.linalg.norm(u_interp-GHIA_U) / np.linalg.norm(GHIA_U)
err_v = np.linalg.norm(v_interp-GHIA_V) / np.linalg.norm(GHIA_V)
```

For the odd uniform grid $N = 65$, index 32 lies at 0.5. `u[:, mid]` fixes x and varies y ; `v[mid, :]` fixes y and varies x . `np.interp` samples these computed curves at the benchmark coordinates. An even grid has no node exactly at 0.5, so this simple index selection would need interpolation in the transverse direction too.

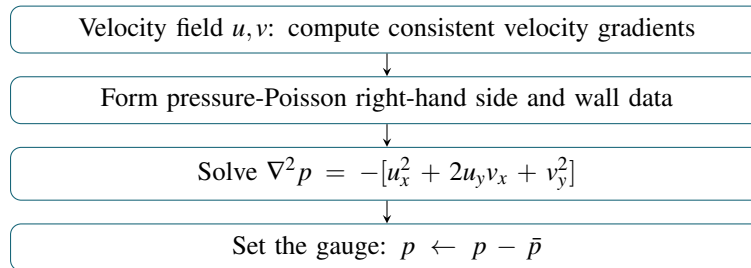
C Visual guide: the solver and pressure extension

The actual loop has two levels. The diagram retains the original lecture’s algorithm overview while making the fixed-step behavior and boundary-update order explicit.



There is no tolerance-triggered exit in the current teaching loop. Inspect equation defects and benchmark agreement as well as changes between iterates. A declining update alone does not demonstrate grid independence.

Optional pressure recovery. This separate path begins with a computed velocity field; it is not a feedback step required by the streamfunction–vorticity solver.



The gauge removes an arbitrary constant. Correct wall data and Neumann compatibility still matter, as explained on page 13. The introductory `run_cavity` return dictionary does not contain a pressure field; the notebook’s separate pressure-validation material is an extension with its own run settings.

Suggested classroom sequence. Derive one stencil, do one update by hand, identify the matching array slice, and then run the full example. Ask students to predict the effect of a sign error before showing a plot.

D Coverage of the original lecture

This expanded edition reorganizes the original lecture; it is not a verbatim copy. The table maps all sixteen original sections. Earlier shortened definitions and visual explanations have been restored or expanded. The original PDF remains available unchanged at its baseline Git commit, linked in the accompanying coverage note.

Original section	Where to find it here
1. Purpose of this lecture	Opening page: learning question and three notebooks
2. What is a fluid?	Section 1: definition, examples, and variable glossary
3. Continuum viewpoint	Section 1: molecular scales, fields, and arrays
4. Eulerian description	Section 1: fixed positions versus particle following
5. Velocity and material derivative	Section 1: chain rule and local/convective acceleration
6. Conservation of mass	Section 2: general and incompressible continuity
7. Momentum: Navier–Stokes	Section 2: vector and both component equations
8. Reynolds number	Section 3: scales, physical interpretation, $Re = 100$
9. Boundary conditions	Section 8 and B2: no slip, impermeability, corner convention
10. Streamfunction–vorticity	Sections 4–6: definitions, proof, transport derivation
11. Finite differences	Section 7 and A1–A4: Taylor series, examples, stencil, algebraic system
12. Residuals and convergence	Section 10 and B4: diagnostics, limits, ML connection
13. Couette, Poiseuille, cavity	Section 11; Couette example also in Section 4
14. Ghia validation	Section 11 and B4: profiles, interpolation, errors
15. Optional pressure recovery	Section 12 and C: equation, boundary data, gauge
16. End-of-week outcomes	Section 12 and the checkpoints throughout

Figures. The old streamline illustration is replaced by a fresh computation with centerline comparisons (page 12). The five-point stencil has a new labeled drawing in A3. The solver and pressure-recovery diagrams are redrawn in C. Their instructional roles are preserved, while the solver diagram now matches the code’s fixed-step implementation.

Scientific clarifications. The original Eq. (15) is proved in Section 5; equation numbers have otherwise changed. Dimensionless viscosity is distinguished from physical viscosity. Pressure recovery is stated with its boundary conditions and gauge. The claim that iteration stops at a residual tolerance is replaced by the actual fixed-step behavior. These corrections retain the topics while improving accuracy. **Code scope.** The notebook’s numerical algorithm is unchanged. B1–B4 explain its existing operations; the arithmetic examples in A and B are explicitly identified as teaching checks.

E1 Why remove pressure, and why use a streamfunction?

The original unknowns are u, v, p . Both momentum components contain pressure gradients, while continuity constrains velocity. In this constant-density incompressible model, pressure adjusts to make the velocity compatible with incompressibility and the boundary conditions; there is no separate thermodynamic pressure evolution law.

Step 1: remove pressure by taking the curl of momentum. Take ∂_x of vertical momentum minus ∂_y of horizontal momentum. The pressure terms cancel:

$$-\partial_x p_y + \partial_y p_x = -p_{yx} + p_{xy} = 0.$$

The result is the pressure-free vorticity equation derived on page 7:

$$\omega_t + u\omega_x + v\omega_y = Re^{-1}\nabla^2\omega.$$

The *curl* eliminates pressure. Defining a streamfunction alone does not remove pressure from the original momentum equations.

Step 2: recover velocity from vorticity while satisfying continuity. The transport equation still needs u, v . Define $u = \psi_y$, $v = -\psi_x$ to satisfy continuity identically; the vorticity definition then gives $\nabla^2\psi = -\omega$. The closed interior system is

$$\begin{aligned} \omega_t + \psi_y\omega_x - \psi_x\omega_y &= Re^{-1}\nabla^2\omega, \\ \nabla^2\psi &= -\omega. \end{aligned}$$

With appropriate initial and boundary data, the two scalar unknowns are ω and ψ . Velocity follows from derivatives. Pressure is not an unknown in this main solve, but the equations still represent momentum conservation.

Why this helps here. For a two-dimensional simply connected cavity, the method makes circulation visible, builds continuity into the velocity representation, and recovers velocity through one scalar Poisson equation. It gives students a compact way to connect flow physics with array operations.

Limitations. A Poisson solve is still required; this transformation does not automatically make the algorithm faster or more accurate. No-slip walls require careful wall-vorticity conditions. A single scalar streamfunction is not a general representation of three-dimensional incompressible velocity. Pressure–velocity methods are valid alternatives, especially for more general geometries and boundary conditions.

Pressure is recovered afterward when needed. To calculate pressure contours, pressure differences, or pressure forces, return to the original momentum equations. Their divergence gives a pressure Poisson equation, whose boundary conditions must also come from momentum. Removing pressure from the main solver does not mean $p = 0$ or $\nabla p = 0$.

Check your understanding. Which operation removes pressure, and which representation automatically satisfies continuity? Answer: the curl of momentum, and the streamfunction representation, respectively.

E2 Pressure Poisson equation: full interior derivation

Use dimensional variables on this page, omitting the subscript d until the final scaling step. Assume constant ρ, ν , smooth fields, no body force, and $u_x + v_y = 0$ for all time:

$$\begin{aligned} u_t + uu_x + vu_y &= -p_x/\rho + \nu(u_{xx} + u_{yy}), \\ v_t + uv_x + vv_y &= -p_y/\rho + \nu(v_{xx} + v_{yy}). \end{aligned}$$

1. Differentiate and add. Apply ∂_x to horizontal momentum and ∂_y to vertical momentum:

$$\partial_t(u_x + v_y) + \partial_x(uu_x + vu_y) + \partial_y(uv_x + vv_y) = -\rho^{-1}\nabla^2 p + \nu\nabla^2(u_x + v_y).$$

The time and viscous terms vanish because the divergence is identically zero. This is not a steady-flow or zero-viscosity assumption: the derivation applies to unsteady viscous incompressible flow too.

2. Expand the convective terms.

$$\begin{aligned} \partial_x(uu_x + vu_y) &= u_x^2 + uu_{xx} + v_x u_y + v u_{yx}, \\ \partial_y(uv_x + vv_y) &= u_y v_x + u v_{xy} + v_y^2 + v v_{yy}. \end{aligned}$$

Their sum is

$$\begin{aligned} &u_x^2 + 2u_y v_x + v_y^2 + u(u_{xx} + v_{xy}) + v(u_{yx} + v_{yy}) \\ &= u_x^2 + 2u_y v_x + v_y^2 + u\partial_x(u_x + v_y) + v\partial_y(u_x + v_y) \\ &= u_x^2 + 2u_y v_x + v_y^2. \end{aligned}$$

3. Solve for the pressure Laplacian.

$$\boxed{\nabla^2 p = -\rho [u_x^2 + 2u_y v_x + v_y^2]} \quad (\text{dimensional}).$$

Since $v_y = -u_x$, an equivalent expression is

$$\nabla^2 p = 2\rho(u_x v_y - u_y v_x).$$

4. Scale the equation. With $p_d = p_{\text{ref}} + \rho U^2 p$, $(x_d, y_d) = L(x, y)$, and $(u_d, v_d) = U(u, v)$, both sides carry the factor $\rho U^2/L^2$. Canceling it gives

$$\boxed{\nabla^2 p = -[u_x^2 + 2u_y v_x + v_y^2]} \quad (\text{dimensionless}).$$

There is no explicit Re in this interior source, but the velocity gradients depend on the viscous solution. Pressure boundary data also depend on viscosity. The equation alone is not a complete pressure boundary-value problem.

E3 Pressure walls, compatibility, and the arbitrary constant

Return to dimensionless variables. Rearrange momentum and project it onto the outward unit normal n :

$$\partial_n p = n \cdot [-u_t - (u \cdot \nabla)u + Re^{-1} \nabla^2 u] = g.$$

The wall pressure gradient therefore follows from momentum. Imposing zero normal pressure gradient on every wall is not generally justified.

Smooth straight cavity walls. Away from the lid corners, a wall with no penetration and constant tangential speed has zero normal velocity for all time. The normal time derivative and the normal convective acceleration vanish at that wall. Thus

$$p_y = Re^{-1} \nabla^2 v \text{ on horizontal walls,} \quad p_x = Re^{-1} \nabla^2 u \text{ on vertical walls.}$$

From continuity and $\omega = v_x - u_y$,

$$\omega_x = v_{xx} - u_{yx} = v_{xx} + v_{yy} = \nabla^2 v, \quad -\omega_y = -v_{xy} + u_{yy} = u_{xx} + u_{yy} = \nabla^2 u.$$

The outward-normal data are therefore

Wall	n	$g = \partial_n p$
Top	$(0, 1)$	$+Re^{-1} \omega_x$
Bottom	$(0, -1)$	$-Re^{-1} \omega_x$
Right	$(1, 0)$	$-Re^{-1} \omega_y$
Left	$(-1, 0)$	$+Re^{-1} \omega_y$

Use consistent boundary-aware derivatives. At the discontinuous lid corners, use the chosen discrete corner treatment; smooth-wall Taylor arguments do not apply exactly there.

Compatibility. For $\nabla^2 p = S$ and $\partial_n p = g$, the divergence theorem requires

$$\int_{\Omega} S \, dA = \int_{\partial\Omega} g \, ds.$$

An exact velocity solution satisfies this relation. Discretization errors can cause a mismatch; measure and report it. Any numerical source correction must be documented, because it changes the discrete recovery problem.

Gauge. Adding a constant to p leaves all gradients unchanged. Choose a zero mean or one reference pressure. After a compatible solve, $p \leftarrow p - \bar{p}$ fixes the gauge. It cannot repair incompatible source and boundary data. On nonuniform grids, use the intended volume weights to define the mean.

Body-force extension. If momentum includes a force per unit mass f , the dimensionless source gains $+\nabla \cdot f$ and the wall data gain $+n \cdot f$. Constant gravity, for example, can affect boundary data even though its divergence is zero.

E4 Pressure recovery in practice and method references

Complete sequence. Obtain the velocity field; calculate consistent gradients; form $S = -[u_x^2 + 2u_y v_x + v_y^2]$ and the momentum-based wall data; check compatibility; solve the Neumann problem with one gauge; check both pressure-Poisson and original momentum residuals. Unsteady momentum checks need the velocity time derivative from the time history.

The interior Jacobi update for pressure on a rectangular grid would be

$$p_C^{k+1} = \frac{(p_E^k + p_W^k)\Delta y^2 + (p_N^k + p_S^k)\Delta x^2 - S_C\Delta x^2\Delta y^2}{2(\Delta x^2 + \Delta y^2)}.$$

The source sign is negative. The streamfunction update has a positive omega term because its Poisson source is $-\omega$. Boundary rows or ghost values and a gauge are still necessary; this interior formula alone is not a pressure solver.

For an assembled all-Neumann system $Ap = b$, $A1 = 0$. If $z^T A = 0$, compatibility requires $z^T b = 0$. The left-nullspace weights depend on the discretization and need not be uniform. A small pressure-Poisson residual also does not guarantee small residuals in both momentum components if the input velocity is inaccurate.

Analytic checks. Couette flow $u = y, v = 0$ gives $S = 0$ and constant pressure in the force-free model. Solid-body rotation $u = -\Omega y, v = \Omega x$ gives $S = 2\Omega^2$ and $p = \Omega^2(x^2 + y^2)/2 + C$. The latter checks signs and factors; it is not a no-slip cavity solution.

Who should be cited? Distinguish the formulation, historical numerical work, the cavity benchmark, and this teaching code. Crediting the entire formulation to a single modern cavity paper would be misleading.

- [4] A. Thom (1933). *The flow past circular cylinders at low speeds*. Proceedings of the Royal Society of London, Series A, 141(845), 651–669. A historical early numerical-flow reference, not an assertion of sole invention of the formulation. [doi:10.1098/rspa.1933.0146](https://doi.org/10.1098/rspa.1933.0146).
- [5] U. Ghia, K. N. Ghia, and C. T. Shin (1982). *High-Re solutions for incompressible flow using the Navier–Stokes equations and a multigrid method*. Journal of Computational Physics, 48(3), 387–411. The directly relevant cavity benchmark uses vorticity–streamfunction equations and coupled strongly implicit multigrid (CSI-MG). [doi:10.1016/0021-9991\(82\)90058-4](https://doi.org/10.1016/0021-9991(82)90058-4).

Attribution for this notebook. The existing code uses centered finite differences, a Jacobi streamfunction solve, explicit Euler vorticity stepping, and wall vorticity obtained from a local Taylor expansion. It compares with Ghia’s data; it does not implement CSI-MG. The derivations here are independently worked from the stated equations, not copied from either article. This appendix explains pressure recovery; it does not add a pressure solver to the notebook.